

Metaphors across Languages

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Overview

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- 2 Metaphor
- 3 Spatial and Orientational Metaphors
- 4 Structural and Ontological Metaphors
- 5 Metonymy
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Some ways of organising and understanding concepts

- Prototype Theory
 - Explains internal category structure
 - Graded membership
 - Central vs peripheral members
- Metaphor and Metonymy
 - Explains cross-domain conceptual mapping
 - Metaphor maps prototypical structure
 - Metaphor creates radial category extensions
 - Metaphor can reshape prototypes over time
- Our question this week: how much of this is **shared** across the languages of East and Southeast Asia, and how much is **language particular**?

Prototypes

- Concepts are organized in groups around a **prototype**
- These have typical members (remembered as **exemplars**)
 - What is typical FURNITURE?
 - What is a typical BIRD?
- Prototypes have **characteristic features**:
a BIRD
 - has feathers
 - warbles
 - flies
 - lays eggs
- This work was pioneered by Rosch (1973) and Rosch et al. (1976)
(very readable)

Relations between Concepts

- Concepts are linked in many ways
- Most common relationship is **hypernymy**: DOG is-a ANIMAL
- Typically subordinate terms inherit from superordinate terms
- Larger units of knowledge, such as **frames**, are similar
- Much recent computational work on these
 - WordNet
 - FrameNet

Basic Level Categories

- Some categories (concepts) seem to be more psychologically basic than others
 - Pictures of objects are categorized faster at the basic level
 - Basic level names used more often in free-naming tasks
 - Children learn them earlier
 - Basic-level names are more common in adult discourse
 - Basic-level categories are common in different cultures
 - Basic level names tend to be short
 - Basic-level names tend to be common in compound nouns

superordinate	basic	subordinate
<i>vehicle</i>	<i>bus</i>	<i>school bus</i>
<i>jewelry</i>	<i>necklace</i>	<i>bib necklace</i>
<i>animal</i>	<i>dog</i>	<i>poodle</i>

Basic Level Categories (ctd)

- Basic level categories are a decomposition of the world into maximally informative categories.
 - BLCs maximize the number of attributes shared by members of the category
 - BLCs minimize the number of attributes shared with other categories
- It can be hard to agree on what is the Basic Level: whereas *dog* is a basic-level category at the species level, *bird* and *fish* sit at a higher level, etc. The levels may be different for different groups of people.
- Similarly, the notion of frequency is very closely tied to the basic level, but not exactly the same.

Linguistic Relativity

- The language we think in makes some concepts easy to express, and some concepts hard
- The idea behind **linguistic relativity** is that this will affect how you think
 - Korean lexicalizes politeness and has rigid social hierarchies
 - English and Chinese speakers differ as to whether they conceptualize things as substances or individuals
 - Gendered language speakers have different connotations: **key**
 - (German: masculine) 'hard, heavy, jagged, metal, and useful'
 - (Spanish: feminine) 'golden, intricate, little, lovely, shiny, and tiny'
 - It is easier to differentiate colors that you have names for
- Most confirmed differences are very, very subtle

The Sapir-Whorf Hypothesis

strong language determines thought and linguistic categories limit and determine cognitive categories

weak linguistic categories and usage influence thought and certain kinds of non-linguistic behaviour

The terms “Strong/Weak Sapir-Whorf Hypothesis” are widely used even though Edward Sapir and Benjamin Lee Whorf never co-authored anything and never stated their ideas in terms of a hypothesis let alone with two versions.

What Whorf actually said

We dissect nature along lines laid down by our native language. The categories and types that we isolate from the world of phenomena we do not find there because they stare every observer in the face; on the contrary, the world is presented in a kaleidoscope flux of impressions which has to be organized by our minds—and this means largely by the linguistic systems of our minds. We cut nature up, organize it into concepts, and ascribe significances as we do, largely because we are parties to an agreement to organize it in this way—an agreement that holds throughout our speech community and is codified in the patterns of our language [...] all observers are not led by the same physical evidence to the same picture of the universe, unless their linguistic backgrounds are similar, or can in some way be calibrated.

Whorf (Carroll; Ed.); 1956: pp. 212–214

Metaphors and Mechanisms of Interpretation

A metaphor is an extension of the use of a word beyond its primary meaning to describe referents that bear similarities to the word's primary referent.

- **eye** “body part used for vision”

(1) *dull end of a needle (with a hole for the thread)*



(2) *the bud on a potato*



(3) *the centre of a storm*



- The similarities between these referents and the primary referent of the word **eye** are their roundish shape and their more or less central location on a larger shape.

The same extension in other languages

- The EYE extensions are not just English:
 - (4) 针眼 *zhēnyǎn* “eye of a needle” (针 “needle” + 眼 “eye”)
 - (5) 台風の目 *taifū no me* “the eye of the typhoon”
 - (6) *mata air* “spring, source” (Malay/Indonesian *mata* “eye” + *air* “water”)
- Some extensions travel well, others do not
- Malay/Indonesian *mata* is especially productive: *mata hari* “sun” (eye of the day), *mata pelajaran* “school subject”, *mata uang* “currency”
- ? Which EYE extensions work in the languages you know?

Conventionalization

- Once a metaphor becomes accepted, speakers tend to view the metaphorical meaning as separated from its primary meaning
 - (7) *booking a flight*
 - (8) *tabling a motion*
 - (9) *seeing the point*
 - (10) *stealing the headlines*
 - (11) *buying time*
- These are **dead/conventionalized metaphors**: we don't need to specially process them
- Over time this is one of the main sources of **polysemy**

Metaphors as non-prototypical use

- In a way, metaphors are non-prototypical uses of a word.
 - Humans understand words by referring to a prototypical usage, and they match a new example against the characteristics of the prototype.
 - Use of words with broken typicality conditions happens all the time.
- (12) *The price of brussel sprouts went up.*
- (13) *Marigold is coming out of a coma.*
- (14) *Felix is under age.*
- (15) *I killed his argument.*
- (16) *Their love affair is blossoming.*
- (17) *She has a fertile imagination.*
- However, depending on how you count frozen metaphors, we may use metaphors more than literal uses!

Our conceptual system is fundamentally metaphorical in nature

George Lakoff

- Cognitive semantics:
There is no separation between cognition and linguistic knowledge
- Features of Metaphor
 - **Conventional**: some metaphors are very well established (but remain metaphorical)
 - **Systematic**: understood as part of larger domains
 - **Asymmetrical**: normally understand the **abstract** in terms of the **concrete**

Metaphors We Live By

- Metaphor is pervasive in everyday life, not just in language but in thought and action.
- Our ordinary conceptual system, in terms of which we both think and act, is fundamentally metaphorical in nature.
- If we are right in suggesting that our conceptual system is largely metaphorical, then the way we think, what we experience, and what we do every day is very much a matter of metaphor.

*George Lakoff and Mark Johnson (1980) Metaphors we live by
University of Chicago Press.*

Prototypical metaphors I

Some metaphors are not as good as others because not all broken typicality conditions result in prototypical metaphors. What is a prototypical metaphor?

- Similarity and dissimilarity have both been stressed.
- Items must not be too similar:

(18) # *Wine is whisky*

(19) # *Cars are trucks*

(20) # *Jam is honey*

Prototypical metaphors II

- They should not be too dissimilar:
 - (21) # *His feet were stars*
 - (22) # *Her cheeks were typewriters*
 - (23) # *Her knees were penguins*
- In a prototypical metaphor then, items compared are likely to come from different lexical fields but they are also similar in that they do share some minor characteristic. Dissimilarity signals the listener to do some active semantic matching.
 - (24) *Life is a subway train*
 - (25) *Men are thistles*
 - (26) *He posted the toast down to his stomach*

Target and Source Domains

Metaphors enable us to understand one domain of experience in terms of another.
Lakoff and Turner (1989)

- We map from a **source domain** to a **target domain**
often written: **TARGET** is **SOURCE**
- The mapping is **systematic**: a whole structure is carried over, not just a single word

DESIRE is HUNGER

- (27) *He was drooling over her.*
- (28) *He is sex-starved.*
- (29) *She thirsts for recognition.*
- (30) *His sexual appetite is enormous.*
- (31) *She hungers for her touch.*

- Target domain: DESIRE (SEX, LUST)
- Source domain: FOOD (HUNGER, EATING)

ARGUMENT is WAR I

- (32) *Your claims are indefensible.*
- (33) *He attacked every weak point in my argument.*
- (34) *His criticisms were right on target.*
- (35) *I demolished his argument.*
- (36) *I've never won an argument with him.*
- (37) *You disagree? Okay shoot!*
- (38) *If you use that strategy, he'll wipe you out.*
- (39) *He shot down all my arguments.*
- (40) *He was defeated by the argument.*

ARGUMENT is WAR II

- We don't just talk about argument in terms of war. We can actually win or lose arguments.
- Many of the things we do in arguing are partially structured by the concept of war. Though there is no physical battle, there is a verbal battle.
 - We see the person we are arguing with as an opponent.
 - We attack their positions and defend our own.
 - We gain and lose ground.
 - We plan and use strategies.
- The metaphor is not only in the words we use — it is in our very concept of argument. We talk about arguments that way because we conceive of them that way — and we act according to the way we conceive of things
- But we could think of an argument as a search for truth, ...

Argument: When losing is winning

- Daniel H. Cohen (2013) argues that the ARGUMENT is WAR metaphor is counterproductive
 - Suppose you and I have an argument. You believe a proposition, P, and I don't. I've objected, I've questioned, I've raised all sorts of counter-considerations, and in every case you've responded to my satisfaction. At the end of the day, I say, 'You know what? I guess you're right.'
 - So I have a new belief. And it's not just any belief, but it's a well-articulated, examined and battle-tested belief.
 - So who won that argument? Well, the war metaphor seems to force us into saying you won, even though I'm the only one who made any cognitive gain.
 - The war metaphor forces us into thinking that you're the winner and I lost, even though I gained — there's something wrong with that picture.
- https://www.ted.com/talks/daniel_h_cohen_for_argument_s_sake

Spatial Metaphors

- **Spatial metaphors** have to do with spatial orientation: *up-down, in-out, front-back, on-off, deep-shallow, central-peripheral*.
- Spatial metaphors give a concept a spatial orientation, e.g. HAPPY is UP: *I'm feeling up today*
- Though polar oppositions *up-down, in-out* are physical in nature, the spatial metaphors based on them can vary from culture to culture (e.g. in most cultures FUTURE is FRONT but in at least one FUTURE is BACK)
 - Aymara, who live in the Andes highlands of Bolivia, Peru and Chile, have future behind them

HAPPY is UP; HEALTHY is UP

HAPPY is UP

- (41) *I'm feeling up.*
- (42) *That boosted my spirits.*
- (43) *My spirits rose.*
- (44) *You're in high spirits.*
- (45) *I'm feeling down.*
- (46) *I'm depressed.*
- (47) *He is really low these days.*
- (48) *My spirits sank.*

HEALTHY is UP

- (49) *He's at the peak of health.*
- (50) *Lazarus rose from the dead.*
- (51) *He's in top shape.*
- (52) *He fell ill.*
- (53) *He is sinking fast.*
- (54) *He came down with the flu.*
- (55) *His health is declining.*
- (56) *He dropped dead.*

CONTROL is UP; AWAKE is UP

CONTROL is UP

- (57) *I have control over her.*
- (58) *I am on top of the situation.*
- (59) *He's at the height of his power.*
- (60) *He's in high command.*
- (61) *He's in the upper echelon.*
- (62) *He is under my control.*
- (63) *He fell from power.*

AWAKE is UP

- (64) *Get up.*
- (65) *Wake up.*
- (66) *He rises early in the morning.*
- (67) *He fell asleep.*
- (68) *He dropped off to sleep.*
- (69) *He's under hypnosis.*
- (70) *He sank into a coma.*

VIRTUE is UP; MORE is UP

VIRTUE is UP

- (71) *He is high-minded.*
- (72) *She is upright.*
- (73) *She is an upstanding citizen.*
- (74) *He is underhanded.*
- (75) *I wouldn't stoop to that.*
- (76) *That is beneath me.*
- (77) *That was a low trick.*

MORE is UP

- (78) *The number of books printed keeps going up.*
- (79) *The number of errors he made is incredibly low.*
- (80) *What is the upper bound?*

Why UP?

- Our experience of physical objects and substances provides a further basis for understanding.
- UP is positive
 - if we pile things up, more reach higher
 - healthy people stand upright
 - when we are awake, we stand up
- Understanding our experiences in terms of objects and substances allows us to pick out parts of our experience and treat them as discrete entities.
- This is why so many of these metaphors recur across unrelated languages: they are grounded in the same bodies

CONTROL is UP in Chinese and Japanese

- Mandarin 上 *shàng* “up” and 下 *xià* “down” carry the same social orientation:
 - (81) 上级 *shàngjí* “superior, higher authority”
 - (82) 下级 *xiàjí* “subordinate”
 - (83) 上司 *shàngsi* “one’s boss”
- Japanese uses the same characters:
 - (84) 上司 *jōshi* “superior, boss”
 - (85) 部下 *buka* “subordinate” (lit. “under the section”)
 - (86) 目上 *meue* “one’s senior” (lit. “above the eye”)
- Shared vocabulary (Sino-Japanese, Sino-Korean, Sino-Vietnamese) means shared metaphors travel with the loanwords
- ? Is this borrowing, or would the metaphor be there anyway?

Time is vertical in Mandarin

- English mostly puts time on a horizontal axis: *the week ahead*, *back in 1999*
- Mandarin also uses a **vertical** axis, with earlier events UP:
 - (87) 上个月 *shàng ge yuè* “last month” (lit. “up month”)
 - (88) 下个月 *xià ge yuè* “next month” (lit. “down month”)
 - (89) 上午 *shàngwǔ* “morning” / 下午 *xiàwǔ* “afternoon”
- And a horizontal one, but with the past in **front**:
 - (90) 以前 *yǐqián* “before” (lit. “taking the front”)
 - (91) 以后 *yǐhòu* “after” (lit. “taking the back”)
- So the Aymara pattern is not as exotic as it first looks
- There is experimental work suggesting these differences show up in non-linguistic tasks — but the effects are small

MENTAL HEALTH is a (FRAGILE) OBJECT

- (92) *Her mental health is very fragile.*
- (93) *We have to handle him with care since his wife's death.*
- (94) *He broke under cross-examination.*
- (95) *She is easily crushed.*
- (96) *The experience shattered him.*
- (97) *I'm going to pieces.*
- (98) *His mind snapped.*
- (99) *He cracked up.*

MIND is a MACHINE

- (100) *We're still trying to grind out the solution to this equation.*
- (101) *My mind just isn't operating today.*
- (102) *Boy, the wheels are turning now!*
- (103) *I'm a little rusty today.*
- (104) *We've been working on this problem all day and now we're running out of steam.*
- (105) *He broke down.*

- Note that the source domain has to exist: this metaphor is not very old

LIFE is a JOURNEY

- The person leading a life is a traveler
- Their purposes are destinations
- The means for achieving purposes are routes
- Difficulties in life are impediments to travel
- Counsellors are guides
- Progress is the distance traveled
- Things you gauge your progress by are landmarks
- Material resources and talents are provisions

Metonymy

- **Metonymy** is a shift of reference *within* a single conceptual domain
- One entity provides mental access to another related entity
- Based on **contiguity** (association, connection), not similarity

Examples

- The White House *announced new policies.* (building → institution/people)
- *She enjoys reading* Shakespeare. (author → works)
- *The* kettle *is boiling.* (container → contents)
- *All* hands *on deck.* (part → whole person)

Key idea: Metonymy navigates structure that is already present.

Metonymy vs. Metaphor

Metonymy

- Within-domain shift
- Based on contiguity
- Referential shortcut
- Exploits existing frame structure
- Example: *Brussels decided to impose tariffs.*

Metaphor

- Cross-domain mapping
- Based on similarity or analogy
- Structures abstract domains
- Creates new conceptual links
- Example: *He attacked my argument.*

Metonymy: A stands for B (same frame)

Metaphor: A is understood in terms of B (different domains)

Kinds of Metonymy I

- PART for WHOLE (synecdoche)

(106) *Can you lend a hand?*

- WHOLE for PART (synecdoche)

(107) *Palacký won the soccer.*

- CONTAINER for CONTENT

(108) *The lunch menu had five dishes.*

- MATERIAL for OBJECT

(109) *I won gold.*

- PRODUCER for PRODUCT

(110) *I'll get an IBM.*

Kinds of Metonymy II

- PLACE for INSTITUTION (toponym)
(111) *Downing Street has made no comment.*
- INSTITUTION for PEOPLE RESPONSIBLE
(112) *Albert raised its prices.*
- PLACE for EVENT
(113) *Hiroshima changed our view of war.*
- CONTROLLER for CONTROLLED
(114) *A truck rear-ended me.*
- OBJECT for USER
(115) *They are a hired gun.*

Metonymy in Asian languages

- PLACE for INSTITUTION works the same way:
 - (116) 永田町 *Nagatachō* “the Japanese political establishment”
(the district where the Diet sits)
 - (117) 霞が関 *Kasumigaseki* “the central bureaucracy”
 - (118) 中南海 *Zhōngnánhǎi* “the Chinese leadership”
- PART for WHOLE with body parts is very widespread:
 - (119) 人口 *rénkǒu* “population” (lit. “person mouth”)
 - (120) 手が足りない *te ga tarinai* “to be short-handed” (lit. “hands are not enough”)
- ? What are the equivalents in the language you are working on?

- Emotions are often considered to be feelings alone, and as such they are viewed as being devoid of conceptual content.
- In fact emotions have a fairly complex conceptual structure which can be studied through metaphors.
- Lakoff and Johnson's cultural model of anger
Physiological effects of anger:
 - Increased body heat
 - Increased internal pressure
 - Agitation
 - Interference with accurate perception
 - As anger increases, the physiological effect increases
 - There is a limit beyond which the physiological effects of anger impair normal functioning.

- Body heat:

(121) *Don't get hot under the collar.*

(122) *Billy's a hothead.*

(123) *They were having a heated argument.*

(124) *She got all hot and bothered.*

- Internal pressure:

(125) *When I found out, I almost burst a blood vessel.*

(126) *He almost had a hemorrhage.*

(127) *I exploded at them.*

ANGER III

- Redness in the face and neck area:

(128) *She was scarlet with rage.*

(129) *He got red with anger.*

(130) *He was flushed with anger.*

- Agitation:

(131) *She was shaking with anger.*

(132) *I was hopping mad.*

(133) *He was quivering with rage.*

(134) *He's all worked up.*

(135) *She's all wrought up.*

- Interference with accurate perception:

(136) *She was blind with rage.*

(137) *I was beginning to see red.*

(138) *I was so mad I couldn't see straight.*

ANGER is HEAT I

- ANGER is HEAT forms the basis of the most general metaphor for anger
- There are two versions to this metaphor, one where the heat is applied to fluid and the other where the heat is applied to solids.
- The fluid version is more elaborated
- The body is a container for the emotions

(139) *He was filled with anger.*

(140) *She couldn't contain her joy.*

(141) *She was brimming with rage.*

(142) *Try to get the anger out of your system.*

ANGER is HEAT II

- The ANGER is HEAT metaphor when applied to fluids combines with the metaphor the body is a container for the emotions to yield the central metaphor of the system:
- ANGER is HEAT OF A FLUID in a container.
 - (143) *You make my blood boil.*
 - (144) *Simmer down!*
 - (145) *I had reached the boiling point.*
 - (146) *Let him stew.*
 - (147) *She was seething with rage.*
- Similarly **pissed off** is used only to refer to anger — “hot liquid under pressure”

ANGER is HEAT III

- Cool and calm corresponds to the lack of anger.
 - (148) *Keep cool.*
 - (149) *Stay calm.*
- When the intensity of anger increases the fluid rises
 - (150) *His pent-up anger welled up inside him.*
 - (151) *She could feel her gorge rising.*
 - (152) *We got a rise out of him.*
 - (153) *My anger kept building up inside me.*
 - (154) *Pretty soon I was in a towering rage.*

ANGER is HEAT IV

- We also know that intense heat produces steam and creates pressure on the container. This yields the metaphorical entailments:
- Intense anger produces pressure on the container

(155) *He was bursting with anger.*

(156) *I could barely contain my rage.*

(157) *I could barely keep it in any more.*

(158) *He suppressed his anger.*

(159) *He turned his anger inward.*

(160) *He managed to keep his anger bottled up inside him.*

(161) *He was blue in the face.*

ANGER is HEAT V

- When the pressure on the container becomes too high, the container explodes.
- When anger becomes too intense the person explodes

(162) *When I told him, he just exploded.*

(163) *She blew up at me.*

(164) *We don't like your outbursts.*

(165) *She blew a fuse.*

(166) *He blew a gasket.*

(167) *He erupted.*

ANGER is HEAT VI

- When a person explodes, parts of them go up in the air

(168) *I blew my stack.*

(169) *I blew my top.*

(170) *She flipped her lid.*

(171) *He hit the ceiling.*

(172) *I went through the roof.*

ANGER is HEAT VII

- The central metaphor of anger as heated fluid in a container indicates that the anger scale is not open-ended, it has a limit. Just as hot fluid in a closed container can only take so much heat before it explodes, so we conceptualise the anger scale as having a limit point. We can only bear so much anger before we explode.
- The conceptual metaphors are motivated by our own physiology.
- There may be cross-cultural differences
- And there are many possible metaphors
 - ANGER is FIRE
 - ANGER is INSANITY
 - ANGER is an OPPONENT
 - ANGER is a DANGEROUS ANIMAL

ANGER is HOT SPICES

(173) one=k helo n-o'oN sili lia'
heart=1SG.POSS like 3SG.exist chilli ginger

“I am furious (lit. there exist chilli and ginger in my heart).”

Adonara-Lamaholot is a small language spoken on the eastern part of Flores Island, Solor Island, and Lembata Island of Eastern Indonesia. From the PhD thesis of Elvis Albertus bin Toni (NTU 2018).

Anger in Chinese: the container holds 气

- Mandarin builds anger on 气 *qì* “air, breath, vital energy” rather than on a hot liquid:
 - (174) 生气 *shēngqì* “get angry” (lit. “produce *qì*”)
 - (175) 我很生气 *wǒ hěn shēngqì* “I am very angry”
 - (176) 消气 *xiāoqì* “calm down” (lit. “dissipate *qì*”)
 - (177) 气死我了 *qì sǐ wǒ le* “I’m furious” (lit. “*qì* killed me”)
- The CONTAINER is the same; what is in it differs
 - English: hot **fluid** under pressure
 - Chinese: excess **qi**, which must be released or dispersed
- The pressure and release structure is shared; the substance is culturally specific — here to traditional Chinese medicine

Anger in Japanese and Korean

- Japanese locates anger in the 腹 *hara* “belly”:
 - (178) 腹が立つ *hara ga tatsu* “get angry” (lit. “the belly stands up”)
 - (179) 腹を立てる *hara o tateru* “get angry” (transitive)
 - (180) 頭に来る *atama ni kuru* “get angry” (lit. “it comes to the head”)
- Korean uses 화 *hwa*, from Sino-Korean 火 “fire”:
 - (181) 화가나다 *hwa-ga nada* “get angry” (lit. “anger/fire comes out”)
 - (182) 속이타다 *sok-i tada* “be anxious, fret” (lit. “the insides burn”)
- Same broad picture — a container, heat, and something rising — but different body parts and different substances
- ? Where does anger live in the language you are working on?

Universality and variation

- Kövecses (2005) argues that conceptual metaphors show both:
 - **universal** tendencies, grounded in shared human bodies (the pressurised container for anger)
 - **cultural variation** in which source domain is chosen, and how it is elaborated (fluid vs *qi* vs chilli and ginger)
- This is exactly the kind of claim you can test with a small cross-linguistic survey
- Beware of two easy mistakes:
 - Assuming a metaphor is universal because it exists in English and one other language
 - Assuming a metaphor is culturally specific because you have not found it elsewhere yet

PERSON is ANIMAL

- One of the most productive metaphor families in every language we know of
- A human is described through the stereotyped properties of an animal

(183) *He is a pig.* (dirty, greedy)

(184) *She is a fox.* (cunning; or attractive)

(185) *Don't be such a sheep.* (unthinking follower)

- The mapping is built on the **cultural stereotype** of the animal, not its actual behaviour
- So the same animal can map very differently across cultures — which makes it a good testbed for universality vs variation

Animal metaphors in East Asia

- The fox is deceptive in Chinese, Japanese and English, but the details differ:
 - (186) 狐 *kitsune* “fox; a sly, deceptive person”
 - (187) 狐狸精 *húlijīng* “fox spirit; a seductive woman”
- Some are much more language specific:
 - (188) 犬 *inu* “dog; a snitch, informer, spy”
 - (189) 청개구리 *cheong-gaeguri* “green tree frog; a contrary, disobedient person”
- English *dog* does not mean “informer”; Czech *pes* does not either
? Does your language have a metaphor for “informer”? What animal?

This week's task: PERSON is ANIMAL

- Please look at some examples of PERSON is ANIMAL metaphors for your language **before next week**. You can work in pairs (or triples).
- Choose one of the languages in the shared sheet (or add one)
- For each metaphor in English, see if it can be used in your language
 - If it can: write the translation and mark it **Y**
 - If it cannot: mark it **N**
 - If the same animal has another metaphorical sense, add it in a new row with a definition
 - If you know other animal metaphors, add them at the end, with both the literal and the metaphorical meaning
- We will then discuss the similarities and differences in class
- The data sheet is linked from the course page for this week

Conclusions

- We can combine words in non-compositional ways
- But still there are shared conventions
- Some things we have to learn (**idioms**), some things we work out on the fly (**metaphors**)
- The distinction is somewhat fuzzy
- Metaphor is not decoration: it structures how we reason about argument, time, emotion and people
- Across the languages of East and Southeast Asia we find the same broad mappings, realised with different bodies, substances and animals
- Saeed (2015) talks about Metaphor in Section 11.4 and Metonymy in Section 11.5

Further reading

- Ning Yu (1998) *The Contemporary Theory of Metaphor: A Perspective from Chinese*. John Benjamins. — book length treatment of Chinese metaphor, including 气
- Andrew Goatly (2006) Humans, Animals, and Metaphors. *Society & Animals* 14:1, pp. 15–37
- Shelley Ching-yu Hsieh (2006) A corpus-based study on animal expressions in Mandarin Chinese and German. *Journal of Pragmatics* 38, pp. 2206–2222
- Kövecses (2005) — the standard reference on universality and cultural variation

Glossary of Key Terms (English–Czech) I

English	Čeština
Basic Level Category	základní úroveň kategorizace
conceptual metaphor	konceptuální metafora
constraint-based	založený na omezeních
construction-based, constructionist	konstruktivistický
conventional	konvenční
dead metaphor	mrtvá metafora
decomposable	rozložitelný
embodied	vtělený
empirical	empirický
formal(ized)	formální, formalizovaný
idiom	idiom
lexicalist	lexikalistický
linguistic relativity	jazykový relativismus

Glossary of Key Terms (English–Czech) II

metaphor	metafora
metonymy	metonymie
mono-stratal	monostratální
non-decomposable	nerozložitelný
nurturant parent	pečující rodič
ontological metaphor	ontologická metafora
orientational metaphor	orientační metafora
polysemy	polysémie
prototype	prototyp
radial category	radiální kategorie
sign	znak
source domain	zdrojová doména
spatial metaphor	prostorová metafora
strict father	přísný otec
symmetrical	symetrický

Glossary of Key Terms (English–Czech) III

synecdoche
systematic
target domain

synekdocha
systematický
cílová doména

Glossary of Key Terms (English–Czech) IV

References I

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- George Lakoff and Mark Johnson. 1980. *Metaphors we live by*. University of Chicago Press.
- George Lakoff and Mark Turner. 1989. *More than Cool Reason: A Field Guide to Poetic Metaphor*. University of Chicago Press.
- Eleanor Rosch. 1973. Natural categories. *Cognitive Psychology*, 4:328–350.
- Eleanor Rosch, Caroline Mervis, Wayne Gray, David Johnson, and Penny Boyes-Braem. 1976. Basic objects in natural categories. *Cognitive Psychology*, 8:382–439.
- John I. Saeed. 2015. *Semantics*. Wiley-Blackwell, fourth edition.